WILEY

Law & Society REVIEW
Journal of the Law and Society Association

Support for the Death Penalty: Instrumental Response to Crime, or Symbolic Attitude?
Author(s): Tom R. Tyler and Renee Weber
Source: *Law & Society Review*, Vol. 17, No. 1 (1982), pp. 21-46
Published by: Wiley on behalf of the Law and Society Association
Stable URL: http://www.jstor.org/stable/3053531
Accessed: 18-02-2016 14:19 UTC

Your use of the JSTOR archive indicates your acceptance of the Terms & Conditions of Use, available at http://www.jstor.org/page/info/about/policies/terms.jsp

JSTOR is a not-for-profit service that helps scholars, researchers, and students discover, use, and build upon a wide range of content in a trusted digital archive. We use information technology and tools to increase productivity and facilitate new forms of scholarship. For more information about JSTOR, please contact support@jstor.org.

*Wiley and Law and Society Association* are collaborating with JSTOR to digitize, preserve and extend access to *Law & Society Review*.
http://www.jstor.org

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

# SUPPORT FOR THE DEATH PENALTY; INSTRUMENTAL RESPONSE TO CRIME, OR SYMBOLIC ATTITUDE?

TOM R. TYLER*
RENEE WEBER

In this study the instrumental and symbolic perspectives on public support for the death penalty were directly compared within the context of a single survey of citizen attitudes. The results suggest that both instrumental and symbolic concerns influenced death penalty support. When the relative influence of the two factors was directly assessed, the symbolic perspective was found to exercise the major influence upon support for capital punishment, while the influence of instrumental crime-related concerns was small. These results suggest that death penalty support is one aspect of general political-social ideology, rather than a response to crime-related concerns or experiences.

Over the past several decades, periodic surveys have questioned the American public on its support for policies involving the sentencing of criminal offenders. The results of these surveys consistently reveal widespread differences of opinion among adult Americans in their support for the death penalty, harsher criminal sentences, increases in police authority, and decreases in the rights of criminal suspects. Some citizens strongly support such policies, while others oppose them with equal vigor.

While social scientists have examined support for various types of punitive policy, they have been particularly concerned with understanding differences in support for the death penalty. Two theoretical explanations have been advanced for variations in such support: that they result from differences in concern about the problem of crime and that they are a function of differences in basic political and social values. Past

* This study was designed and conducted with the assistance of Robyn Diller, Lisa Hamilton, Joseph Kulba, Mary Polnow, Marcy Roe, Anne Stark, Evelyn Twine, and Bonnie Wolf. The authors would like to thank David Cordray, Shari Diamond, Phoebe Ellsworth, Lawrence Hughes, and Neil Vidmar for providing comments on drafts of this manuscript. Please address correspondence concerning this paper to Tom R. Tyler, Department of Psychology, Northwestern University, Evanston, Illinois, 60201.

LAW & SOCIETY REVIEW, Volume 17, Number 1 (1982)

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

research has examined these theoretical explanations for punitiveness, and each has received some empirical support. Such examinations, however, have focused upon one of the two explanations and have not involved direct comparisons of their relative strengths. As a result, currently available data do not allow us to evaluate the relative merits of the two theories. This study directly tests the ability of each of these two theoretical explanations to account for variations in public support for the death penalty.

## I. BACKGROUND

### *Punitiveness as an Instrumental Response to Crime*

The instrumental response hypothesis suggests that support for the death penalty results from a desire to lower the rate of crime. The argument underlying this hypothesis is that citizens who fear crime or see it as an important social problem and who believe that crime would be lessened by harsher punishments will support harsher punishments. Various forms of this view have been articulated by Thomas (Thomas and Foster, 1975; Thomas and Cage, 1976; Thomas and Howard, 1977; Thomas, 1977) and by Taylor and Stinchcombe (Stinchcombe *et al.*, 1980; Taylor *et al.*, 1979).

The most complete examination of the instrumental theory of policy support comes from the work of Thomas. Thomas reports two separate surveys—both suggesting that instrumental considerations influence support for the death penalty. In the first survey, a sample of 839 residents of Florida was interviewed by mail (Thomas and Foster, 1975). Within that sample a path-analytic model was constructed which explained 66 percent of the variance in support for capital punishment. In the model, support for capital punishment was directly related to the willingness to employ punishment to stop crime ($r = .781$) and to perceptions that punishment is effective ($r = .772$). These, in turn, were related to fear of crime (which influences perceived effectiveness of punishment, $r = .574$) and perceptions of the crime rate (which influence willingness to employ punishment, $r = .563$).

In the second survey, 3,334 residents of Virginia were interviewed by mail (Thomas, 1977; Thomas and Howard, 1977). Thomas examined the influence of instrumental beliefs upon support for the death penalty and found a substantial relationship ($r = .452$). He also found a relationship between retributive sentiments and death penalty support ($r = .336$).

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

However, since retributive sentiments were related to instrumental beliefs, that relationship might have been spurious. In fact, with controls on utilitarian sentiments, the relationship dropped substantially (Thomas, 1977; uncontrolled gamma = .340; with control gamma = .182). Finally, Thomas finds little influence of dogmatism upon support for capital punishment (r = .036). In addition to examining support for the death penalty, Thomas used the same survey to examine variations in support for severe sanctions for committing 17 different crimes (Thomas and Cage, 1976). He found that severity in sanctioning was related to perceptions of the crime rate (gamma = .114), to fear of victimization (gamma = .139), to perceptions of the effectiveness of punishment (gamma = .220), and to a general willingness to employ punishment (gamma = .235).

Both of the surveys reported by Thomas support his instrumental approach to understanding citizen feelings about punitive public policies. Because of two design problems, however, neither survey represents an appropriate test of the true power of the instrumental approach. The major problem is that Thomas predicted an interaction effect but did not include an interaction term with which to test it. According to the instrumental model, those especially concerned with crime and convinced that the punitive public policies deter crime would be especially strong supporters of such policies, while neither belief in itself should be sufficient to induce support. Instead of testing this interaction model, Thomas relied upon main effects. Therefore, the true power of the model remains unknown. Second, Thomas included within his model a scale assessing general willingness to employ punishment. This scale does not fit within the instrumental model and appears to represent a moral dimension. Hence, its unclear theoretical status renders its inclusion within the model suspect.

In evaluating the Thomas data, it is important to note that judgments concerning the effectiveness of punishment consistently appear to exercise the major influence upon death penalty support. In the Florida sample, the correlation between judgments of the effectiveness of punishment and death penalty support was r = .772, while the correlation with death penalty support for fear was r = .493 and for the rate of crime r = .450. In the Virginia sample, the correlation for effectiveness of punishment judgments and support for severe punishments was gamma = .220, while the gamma between fear and punitiveness was .139 and for crime rate .114. In each case,

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

therefore, the predominant factor in support for punitive policies is the judgment of the effectiveness of punishment.

A second instrumental perspective on punitiveness is provided by the work of Taylor and Stinchcombe (Stinchcombe *et al.*, 1980; Taylor *et al.* 1979). These authors advance the "pragmatic" theory that increased victimization and fear of crime lead to greater support for harsh sanctions. They test this prediction using data collected in the General Social Surveys of the National Opinion Research Center. Their finding is that victimization, fear of crime, and judgments that crime is an important national problem are all related only "weakly" to support for the death penalty. While the exact magnitude of this relationship is unclear, since the authors report no statistics indexing magnitude of association, the authors indicate that it is small. The strongest result of concern about crime is a greater consistency in ideology on crime-related issues; i.e., those concerned about crime show a higher correlation between their political-social attitudes and their views about punitiveness.

An approach similar to that of Stinchcombe *et al.* has also been utilized by several other authors. Conklin (1971) interviewed suburban and urban residents and found that victimization and fear were associated with increased support for harsh sanctions. Similarly, Vidmar (1974) found that, among a sample of Canadian adults, judgment that crime was increasing related to death penalty support, although judgment of the likelihood of victimization did not. On the other hand, Block (1971) found no relationship between fear of crime and support for increases in the police power to search suspects in a sample of the residents of major non-southern cities.

The final evidence supporting the instrumental perspective comes from citizen self-reports of motives underlying support for the death penalty. Vidmar (1974) asked Canadian adults to indicate why they supported the death penalty and found that deterrence was the major motive given (42 percent), with retribution, vengeance, or punishment (i.e., retribution of some type) mentioned by 32 percent. Forced choices among the deterrence and retributive motivations suggested even stronger support for deterrence. For example, when asked whether retribution or general deterrence was the most important reason for supporting the death penalty for murder, 63 percent preferred the deterrence alternative. When retribution was compared to specific deterrence, 76 percent preferred deterrence. Similarly, Vidmar and Ellsworth (1974) report that

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

when self-reported motives for death penalty support have been measured in public opinion polls, the results usually suggest that deterrence is the major underlying motive for death penalty support.

Some evidence for the validity of self-reported motives for death penalty support is provided by a study conducted by Sarat and Vidmar (1976). These authors presented 181 adults in Massachusetts with pamphlets discussing the utility of the death penalty. The information presented indicated that the death penalty did not, in fact, deter crime. Prior to the presentation, 51 percent of those involved were in favor of the death penalty. Following the information, 38 percent favored the death penalty. These data indicate that among some respondents, disconfirmation of the beliefs upon which their support rested led to a revision in beliefs. On the other hand, not all of those involved showed such a revision.

One potential problem with the Sarat and Vidmar study is that the assessment of change in views about the death penalty immediately followed the presentation of the information on utility. This procedure may have placed pressure upon the respondent to indicate change—i.e., may have led to effects due to experimenter demand. Evidence against such a demand explanation is provided by Vidmar and Dittenhoffer (1981). Vidmar and Dittenhoffer replicated the procedures utilized by Sarat and Vidmar, but introduced a two-week delay between information presentation and attitude assessment. Despite this change, which should have lessened demand pressures, the original findings of Sarat and Vidmar were replicated.

Overall the data on the instrumental perspective are fairly consistent and provide moderate support for a utilitarian view. No study directly tests the interaction hypothesis that those who are concerned about crime and who feel that punishment could effectively reduce crime will be most supportive of punitive policies, but each component of the interaction has been tested alone. Evidence suggests that concern about crime usually has an effect upon support for punitive policies, although this effect is weak, while judgments of the effectiveness of punishment are strongly related to support for punitive policies. In addition, research on self-reported motives for death penalty support indicates that deterrence is the major reason given for such support.

Studies on the instrumental model also provide some scattered evidence against the political/social value explanation for punitive policy support. Thomas and Howard

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

(1977) found that dogmatism was unrelated to support for capital punishment, while Stinchcombe, *et al.*, found that social liberalism (support for civil liberties, feminism, and abortion) was related only weakly to punitiveness.

*Punitiveness as a Symbolic Attitude*

The alternative to viewing support for punitive public policies as the result of utilitarian concerns about crime is to see such support as developing from political and social attitudes. Three attitudes in particular have been suggested as possible sources of death penalty support: authoritarianism, dogmatism, and liberalism. In the case of authoritarianism and dogmatism, such support is hypothesized to develop from the general punitive orientation which accompanies those personality characteristics, while a liberal political outlook is generally suggested to be related to opposition to punitive public policies.

The symbolic perspective is buttressed by a series of studies which indicate that death penalty support is related to authoritarianism, dogmatism, and/or conservatism (Comrey and Newmeyer, 1965; Jurow, 1971; Rokeach and McLellan, 1969; Rokeach and Vidmar, 1973; Snortum and Ashear, 1972; Vidmar, 1974). In addition, other studies have found such support to be related to a variety of other beliefs typically associated with authoritarianism and/or conservatism, such as race prejudice (see Vidmar and Ellsworth, 1974, for a review).

To counter prior findings concerning self-reported motives for supporting the death penalty, research on the symbolic perspective has attempted to demonstrate that self-reports of motivations underlying support for the death penalty are inaccurate indications of actual motivations for such support. Ellsworth (1978) suggests that such reports are rationalizations for support. Several studies have supported this view by demonstrating that many say they would continue to support the death penalty even if it had no deterrent value (Ellsworth and Ross, 1981; Vidmar, 1974). Ellsworth and Ross, for example, found that 66 percent of those who said they supported the death penalty indicated that they would still support it if it had no deterrent value. These results suggest that deterrence is not the major source of death penalty support.

Finally, the symbolic perspective is supported by the only direct comparison of the instrumental and symbolic explanations which has been conducted. That study was based

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

upon a secondary analysis of the 1976 National Election Study (Sears *et al.* 1980). The study compared the importance of crime-related experience, fears and concerns, and political-social attitudes as sources of support for punitive policies for dealing with crime. The results suggested a clear predominance of political-social attitudes over instrumental concerns.

Unfortunately, several methodological problems resulting from the secondary analysis of previously collected data prevent the study by Sears *et al.* from being a definitive comparison of the symbolic and utilitarian perspectives. First, there are no items with which to form a deterrence belief scale. Since this scale is typically strongly related to death penalty support, its absence unfairly handicaps the instrumental perspective. Second, some variables are based upon single items. As a consequence, it has not been possible to assess the reliability with which constructs were measured. Since the goal of the studies is to compare the relative influence of two classes of variables, this is a serious problem because differences in quality of measurement affect comparisons of relative influence.

Taken as a whole, the evidence currently available is inconsistent concerning the validity of utilitarian and symbolic theories regarding support for punitive public policies. Each theory has received some support, but neither has been shown to be clearly more important than the other. The purpose of this study is to directly test the instrumental and symbolic perspectives within the context of a single survey of citizen attitudes toward the death penalty. The approach taken is to assess concern about crime, motivations underlying support for punitive policies, and political/social attitudes, and to examine their association with death penalty support. This effort to directly compare the instrumental and symbolic perspectives follows from the previously described effort to make such a direct comparison using the 1976 National Election Study data collected by the University of Michigan (Sears *et al.*, 1980). The goal of this survey is to make a similar direct comparison without the methodological problems associated with that study.

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

## II. DESIGN

### *Data*

This study was based upon interviews with 200 residents of Evanston, Illinois. Respondents were interviewed by telephone during the spring of 1980. The sample was derived using a two-stage sampling procedure. In the first stage, a random sample of listed telephone numbers was drawn using systematic sampling procedures (Babbie, 1973). The last two digits of each number were then replaced with random numbers to include unlisted numbers in the sample, and each number was called. Following contact with an individual in the household, the second stage of randomization occurred. Using the Troldahl and Carter random sampling procedure (Troldahl and Carter, 1964), an individual within each household was chosen as the respondent. This individual was then interviewed. Of those working residential numbers called (i.e., excluding businesses and nonworking numbers) 66 percent yielded completed interviews.

### *Measures*

Four types of independent variable were assessed: past experiences with crime, current and future fears and concerns about crime, general political and social attitudes, and demographic characteristics. The first independent variable assessed was past experience with crime. Respondents were asked to indicate their experience with six types of crime during the previous five years (burglary, attempted burglary, car theft, theft of property outside home, robbery/assault, larceny [pocket picked/purse snatched]). In addition, they were asked to indicate how frequently they had experienced problems with burglary and robbery/assault during the past several years. A scale was constructed to represent personal experience with crime as indexed using each of these two approaches. These two scales were found to be highly related ($r = .57$, $p < .001$); therefore, they were standardized and combined to form a single index of past victimization experience (alpha = .73). In addition to personal experience with crime, experiences heard about through others and through the mass media were assessed. Respondents were asked to indicate "how frequently" they had heard about others' experiences with burglary and with robbery/assault during the past two years. These two judgments were found to be moderately correlated ($r = .43$, $p < .001$), and for this reason

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

a single index of others' experience with crime (alpha = .60) was created.

Crime-related fears were assessed utilizing four questions, two on burglary and two on robbery and assault. For each type of crime, respondents were first asked how much they worried about victimization by that crime. They were then asked how likely they felt such victimization would be in the future. The four items were found to be moderately correlated (mean r= .30), and a single index of fear was created (alpha = .63).

Concern about the problem of crime was assessed by asking respondents three questions concerning the problem of crime. Respondents were asked to indicate the seriousness of the overall problem of crime in Evanston, the seriousness of the burglary problem, and the seriousness of the problem of robbery/assault. These judgments were found to be moderately correlated (mean r = .49), and a single index of concern about crime was formed (alpha = .74).

Judgments of the amount of crime were assessed by asking respondents how many burglaries and how many robberies/assaults had recently occurred in Evanston. These two questions were found to be highly correlated ($r = .66$, $p < .001$), and a single index of crime rate was formed (alpha = .80).

Two general political and social attitudes were assessed. They were liberalism and authoritarianism. Two types of scale were used to assess liberalism: self-report and social issue beliefs. To assess self-reported liberalism, respondents were asked whether they considered themselves to be liberal or conservative. Respondents answering in the affirmative were asked to indicate the appropriate term to describe themselves and the degree to which it applied. Combining these questions created a seven-point liberalism scale. A second liberalism score was obtained using support for four liberal issue positions: civil rights, free speech, women's equal rights, and abortion. The questions used for this assessment were balanced for agreement. The four issue positions were found to be related (mean r = .40) and were combined to form an index of issue liberalism. This scale was then found to be related to self-reported liberalism ($r = .35$, $p < .001$). Since both scales were related to death penalty support ($r = .21$, $p < .01$ for issue liberalism and $r = .17$, $p < .05$ for self-report), the two scales were standardized and combined to form an overall index of liberalism (alpha = .52).

Six items were used to assess authoritarianism, three with agreement indicating high authoritarianism and three with

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

disagreement indicating high authoritarianism. The agreement items were: "Obedience and respect for authority are the most important virtues children should learn"; "Most people who don't get ahead just don't have enough will power"; and "Human nature being what it is there will always be war and conflict." The disagreement items were: "People who commit sex crimes, such as rape, are mentally ill and belong in hospitals rather than prisons"; "If it were not for the rebellious ideas of youth there would be less progress in the world"; and "Sometimes it is the duty of a citizen to disobey the government." These six items were found to be only weakly correlated ($r = .05$), but an authoritarianism scale was formed by combining them (alpha = .24). A major reason for the low mean inter-item correlation found within the authoritarianism scale is a clear agreement bias; i.e., those who agreed with the agreement items were also found to agree with the disagreement items. Such an agreement bias has, of course, been a troubling problem in the measurement of authoritarianism since early studies in that area (Kirscht and Dillehay, 1967). In this case, the balancing of agreement and disagreement items led to lower inter-item correlations, but a measurement of authoritarianism free of agreement bias.

Finally, demographic characteristics were assessed. Respondents were asked to indicate their age, race, education, income, and religion. Their sex was indicated by the interviewer.

To assess citizens' motives for supporting the death penalty, respondents were asked to agree or disagree with a series of statements indexing beliefs about the death penalty which would serve as possible motivations for death penalty support. From previous research, three basic motives were established: retribution, humanitarianism, and instrumentality. The first motivation for supporting the death penalty is retribution. Those citizens motivated to support the death penalty as a means of restoring justice believe that the death penalty is a just or fair punishment for some crimes. A second motive for support/opposition to the death penalty is the perceived inhumanity of the punishment, i.e., its "cruelty." Those who oppose the death penalty on humanitarian grounds believe that it is a cruel and therefore unacceptable punishment. Finally, there is the familiar deterrence motive. Those who favor the death penalty based on its instrumental promise believe that imposition of the death penalty will deter crime.

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

Retributive motives were assessed through four questions: "The death penalty is the just way to compensate the victim or their family for some types of crimes"; "The death penalty is sometimes necessary to maintain citizens' beliefs in justice"; "Those who hurt others deserve to be hurt in return"; and "We have a moral obligation to punish those who break the law."

Humanitarian motives for opposing the death penalty were assessed through agreement with four items: "No matter what crime a person has committed executing them is a cruel punishment"; "Sentencing a criminal to life in prison is more humane than executing them"; "There are good religious reasons for opposing the death penalty"; and "The death penalty should never be used because an innocent person may be killed."

Instrumental reasons for support were assessed by asking respondents to agree or disagree with four statements: "Executing a person for violating the law discourages others from committing that crime in the future"; "Criminals think twice before committing a crime which carries the death penalty"; "It is important to have the death penalty to save the taxpayer the price of keeping a hardened criminal in prison for life"; and "The death penalty is sometimes necessary to insure that a criminal never repeats his crime."

The dependent variable was support for the death penalty. Support for the death penalty was assessed through three questions, each of which asked respondents whether they felt that those committing a particular type of crime should "always," "sometimes," or "never" be executed. The three crimes considered were kidnapping, murder, and killing a policeman or a prison guard. These items were found to be highly correlated (mean $r = .64$), and a single scale was formed (alpha = .52).

*The Setting*

The respondents to the survey were a random sample of the residents of Evanston, Illinois. While Evanston is a suburban community which normally has a moderate crime rate, during the Spring of 1980 the community was experiencing a period of high concern over crime. A series of murders and rapes, in conjunction with increasing burglary rates, pushed crime to the head of the political agenda during the period of the survey. In fact, the beginning question of the survey, an open-ended question concerning the "most important problem facing the city of Evanston," indicated that 48 percent of

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

residents viewed crime or safety on the streets as the most important city problem. Because Evanston was experiencing a perceived "crime wave," it was a particularly appropriate setting in which to test theories that concern or fear about crime generated high levels of support for punitive public policies.

## III. RESULTS

### *Comparing the Instrumental and Symbolic Perspectives*

While the instrumental and symbolic perspectives are theoretically distinct, they need not be empirically distinct. If, for example, conservatives are more afraid of crime than liberals are, then the two theories do not make differing predictions concerning who will support the death penalty. An examination of the relationship between crime-related concerns and fears and political/social outlook indicates that the two classes of variables are essentially independent, with the mean correlation between indices from the two groups equal to 0.04. In other words, the two perspectives are not only theoretically different, they are empirically distinct.

### *Distinguishing Motives Underlying Death Penalty Support*

Before examining the role of instrumental factors in death penalty support, it is necessary to determine if deterrence

Table 1. Factor Analysis: Motives for Death Penalty Support

| | Factors | | | |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| | Retribution | Deterrence | Humanitarianism | Pragmatism |
| Factor 1 | | | | |
| Just way to compensate victim or family. | .60 | — | — | — |
| Necessary to maintain beliefs in justice. | .52 | — | — | — |
| Those who hurt deserve to be hurt in return. | .73 | — | — | — |
| Moral obligation to punish lawbreakers. | .64 | — | — | — |
| Factor 2 | | | | |
| Execution discourages others from committing the crime. | — | .97 | — | — |
| Criminals think twice before committing capital crime. | — | .60 | — | — |
| The death penalty insures no repeat of crime. | — | — | — | — |
| Factor 3 | | | | |
| Execution is a cruel punishment. | — | — | .69 | — |
| Life in prison is more humane than death. | — | — | .70 | — |
| With death penalty innocent may be killed. | — | — | .53 | — |
| There are good religious reasons for opposing death penalty. | — | — | — | — |
| Factor 4 | | | | |
| It is important to have the death penalty to save the price of life in prison. | — | — | — | .89 |

NOTE: Varimax rotation utilized. Only factor loadings over .50 were included. Use of the Joreskog factoring approach suggests that four factors are necessary to fit the data (Chi-square (24) = 34.74, p. = .07).

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

beliefs (i.e., beliefs in the effectiveness or deterrence value of punishment) are a distinct set of beliefs about the death penalty. To make this determination, agreement with the twelve statements indexing the three previously described motives for death penalty support were factor analyzed.

Factor analysis utilizing the Joreskog "J-factor" procedure (Joreskog and Van Thillo, 1971) indicated that four factors were necessary to fit the date (Chi-square [24] = 34.74, p = .07). Examination of these factors using orthogonal rotation (Varimax) produced the four factors shown in Table 1. The factors shown in Table 1 indicate that the retributive and humanitarian motives each formed a separate factor. The instrumental factor, however, split into two distinguishable motives: deterrence (Factor 2) and pragmatism (Factor 4). These results suggest four distinct motives underlying support for the death penalty. The items for each of the four motives defined by the factor analysis were combined, using unit weighting, to produce a scale indexing the motive for support.

Since deterrence is an important motive in the analysis to be conducted, it should be noted that the deterrence factor includes only belief in general deterrence, i.e., the ability of punishment to deter others. The item indexing belief in specific deterrence—the prevention of repeat crimes—did not load on the deterrence factor. Hence only general deterrence effects are being examined.

While the factor analysis of motives indicated four distinct factors, examination of the relationship between these factors, shown in Table 2, suggests that the four different motives for supporting the death penalty are related; i.e., respondents who feel that the death penalty is the "just" punishment for certain

Table 2. Correlation Between Motives for Death Penalty Support

| | Factors | | | |
|---|---|---|---|---|
| | Retribution | Deterrence | Humanitarianism | Pragmatism |
| Motives | | | | |
| Retribution | — | | | |
| Deterrence | .29*** | — | | |
| Humanitarianism | .37*** | .29*** | — | |
| Pragmatism | .36*** | .51*** | .26*** | |
| Relationship to death penalty support | | | | |
| Correlation | .48*** | .46*** | .48*** | .32*** |
| Beta weight | .29*** | .30*** | .29*** | .01 |

NOTE: Entries are the Pearson correlation coefficient, unless otherwise noted.
*p < .05.
**p < .01.
***p < .001.

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

crimes also believe that it is not cruel, that it deters crime, and that it is sometimes justified as a way of saving the taxpayer money. In addition, examination of the zero-order correlations between support for each motive and support for the death penalty, also shown in Table 2, indicates that each motive leads to death penalty support. Of course, since the motives involved are correlated, a more appropriate analysis is the regression also shown in Table 2. This regression suggests that each motive except pragmatism explains significant independent variance in death penalty support. Only the three major motives will be considered further in the analysis.

The results of the factor analysis suggest that it is possible to isolate a distinct deterrence factor which can be used as the effectiveness of punishment term suggested by Thomas. At the same time, the results confirm the finding of previous investigators (Ellsworth and Ross, 1981; Thomas, 1977) that beliefs about deterrence are not independent of other beliefs about the death penalty.

*Comparing the Utilitarian and Symbolic Approaches*

Regression analysis was used to assess the contribution of three classes of independent variables to the prediction of support for the death penalty. The three classes of variables considered were: (1) crime-related experiences and concerns, (2) political and social attitudes, and (3) demographic variables. Five types of crime-related experiences and concerns were used: past victimization experience, the experiences of others, fear of future victimization, concern about the crime problem, and estimates of the rate of crime. Political/social attitudes included conservatism and authoritarianism. Demographics included age, sex, race, education, income, and religion. According to the instrumental hypothesis, death penalty support should be related to the interaction of concern about crime and belief in deterrence. The symbolic hypothesis, on the other hand, predicts that death penalty support will be related to conservatism and authoritarianism.

Four equations were run. The first two equations (equations 1 and 2) treated fear, concern, and estimates of the crime rate as main effects. The final equations (equations 3 and 4) treated these same variables as interactions. Fear, concern, and rate estimates were each multiplied by the deterrence scale to create interaction terms. For example, fear

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

of future victimization was multiplied by belief in the ability of the death penalty to deter crime to create an interaction term. In addition, two equations (1 and 3) were run including experience with crime, while two equations (2 and 4) were run excluding those terms. Since experience leads to fear (Skogan, 1977; Tyler, 1980), the two variables were causally related and their joint inclusion in a single equation underestimates the contribution of each. By considering only fear, concern, and rate estimates, their appropriate influence is established.

The simple regressions, shown in Table 3, indicate that authoritarianism is consistently the variable most strongly related to support for the death penalty. In addition, the fear X deterrence interaction makes a lesser independent contribution to death penalty support. These results suggest two sources of death penalty support: the general social outlook represented by authoritarianism and the instrumental combination of fear of crime victimization and the belief that the death penalty deters criminals.

A major difficulty in prior surveys examining sources of support for the death penalty has been the failure to control for differences in the quality of measurement. In this study, an effort was made to measure reliability of measurement so that possible confounding might be eliminated. Examination of the reliability of measurement of each construct, shown in Table 4, indicates that confounding does not occur in this study. In fact, quite the opposite is true. In this study, political and social attitudes, which are the major sources of support for the death penalty, are the most unreliably measured variables in the study. This is particularly true in the case of authoritarianism which, for reasons previously described, has a reliability of measurement much lower than other variables in the study. As we would expect in such a case, adjustment for reliability of measurement increases the influence of the already predominant authoritarianism factor (Joreskog and Sorbom, 1978; see Table 3).

A second approach to comparing relative magnitude, also based upon regression equations, is usefulness analysis. Here the ability of each set of independent variables to predict variance in policy attitudes is assessed. In this approach, a category of variables is added to another in a stagewise regression. The increment in variance explained indicates the ability of that category to account for variance above that accounted for by the original variables. Since this approach assigns all joint variance to the original variables, it provides a

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

Table 3. Simple Regressions: Sources of Support for the Death Penalty

| | Beta Weights | | | | | | | |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| | No reliability adjustment | | | | Reliability adjustment | | | |
| | Main effects | | Interaction | | Main effects | | Interaction | |
| | Eq. 1 | Eq. 2 | Eq. 3 | Eq. 4 | Eq. 1 | Eq. 2 | Eq. 3 | Eq. 4 |
| Crime-related experiences and concerns | | | | | | | | |
| Past victimization | .03 | — | −.07 | — | .06 | — | −.03 | — |
| Others' experiences | −.05 | — | −.04 | — | −.05 | — | −.05 | — |
| Fear | .02 | .03 | .20* | .19 | .02 | .03 | .22** | .20* |
| Concern | −.02 | −.01 | .02 | .02 | −.02 | −.02 | .01 | .00 |
| Estimates of the crime rate | −.03 | −.03 | .08 | .07 | −.03 | −.03 | .08 | .09 |
| Political-social attitudes | | | | | | | | |
| Liberalism | .11 | .11 | .07 | .07 | .13 | .13 | .09 | .10 |
| Authoritarianism | .35*** | .34*** | .31*** | .32*** | .88*** | .88*** | .79*** | .87*** |
| Demographics | | | | | | | | |
| Age | .05 | .05 | .08 | .06 | — | — | — | — |
| Sex | .08 | .09 | .16 | .15 | — | — | — | — |
| Race | −.02 | −.01 | .04 | .03 | — | — | — | — |
| Education | −.01 | −.01 | .01 | .01 | — | — | — | — |
| Income | −.08 | −.08 | −.05 | −.05 | — | — | — | — |
| Protestant | −.18 | −.18 | −.15 | −.15 | — | — | — | — |
| Catholic | −.10 | −.09 | −.10 | −.10 | — | — | — | — |
| Jewish | −.13 | −.12 | −.12 | −.12 | — | — | — | — |
| Total ($R^2$) | .14** | .15*** | .19*** | .20*** | — | — | — | — |

NOTE: Entries are standardized regression coefficients for each term when all terms are entered simultaneously. Entries in the total column are the adjusted multiple correlation coefficient.

*p < .05.
**p < .01.
***p < .001.

more conservative test of the value of the added category of variables than does a simple regression equation in which joint variance is controlled for. In the usefulness analysis

Table 4. Reliability Coefficients

| Variable | Reliability (Coefficient alpha) |
|---|---|
| Crime-related experiences and concerns | |
| Past victimization | .73 |
| Other's experiences | .60 |
| Fear | .63 |
| Concern | .74 |
| Estimates of base rate | .80 |
| Political-social attitudes | |
| Liberalism | .52 |
| Authoritarianism | .24 |

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

performed, equation 3 from Table 1 was utilized so that the possibility of finding a contribution of crime-related concerns would be maximized.

Examination of the results of the usefulness analysis, shown in Table 5, supports the previous suggestion that the primary determinant of support for punitive policies and for the death penalty is basic political and social attitudes. In the case of the death penalty, political and social attitudes explain 11 percent of the variance beyond that explained by crime-related experience and fears ($p < .001$), while the addition of crime-related experiences and fears following political and social attitudes only explains an additional one percent of the variance (n.s.). These data, in conjunction with those in Table 3, suggest the central role of political and social attitudes as a source of support for the death penalty and other punitive public policies.

Table 5. Usefulness Analysis: Sources of Support for the Death Penalty

| | Support for the Death Penalty |
|---|---|
| Zero-order contribution of | |
| Crime-related experiences and concerns | .08** |
| Political-social attitudes | .18*** |
| Demographics | .04 |
| Contribution of political attitudes | |
| Beyond crime-related experiences and concerns | .11*** |
| Beyond demographics | .12*** |
| Beyond both crime-related experiences and concerns and demographics | .08** |
| Contribution of crime-related experiences and concerns | |
| Beyond political attitudes | .01 |
| Beyond demographics | .07*** |
| Beyond political attitudes and demographics | .03 |
| Total | .19*** |

NOTE: The amount of variance explained is an indication of how useful each set of predictor variables is in predicting variance in support for the death penalty. When predictors are correlated, the amount of variance any category predicts when considered alone overestimates that category's unique contribution to the regression. But the increase in $R^2$ produced by adding that category to a stagewise regression after another category has already been included provides an index of its unique contribution to variance explained. To give an example of how these usefulness figures are computed, political attitudes and crime-related experiences and concerns together explain 19% of the variance in support for the death penalty. When the contribution of political attitudes alone (18%) is subtracted from this, the remainder (1%) is the amount of additional variance explained by crime-related concerns above and beyond that explained by political attitudes. The data from this table comes from equation 3 of the regressions shown in Table 1. All entries are adjusted $R^2$'s.

*$p < .05$.
**$p < .01$.
***$p < .001$.

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

*The Nature of Death Penalty Support*

The previously described results suggest that the symbolic view of death penalty support more adequately explains the variations in death penalty support observed within this survey than does the instrumental perspective. At the same time, however, the analysis leaves some aspects of death penalty support unclear. In particular, it is not clear how to explain the indications that the instrumental perspective accounts for a lesser, but independent, component of variance in support for capital punishment. Because this influence of the concern X deterrence interaction emerges in the analysis, a further effort needs to be made to understand its nature and meaning.

To understand the concern X deterrence interaction, that interaction must be distinguished from the deterrence beliefs that form one of its components. Four sets of interrelated

Table 6. Usefulness Analysis: Comparing Motives and Crime-Related Concerns

| | Support for the death penalty | |
|---|---|---|
| | Deterrence only | All motivations included |
| Zero-order contribution of | | |
| Motivations | .21*** | .39*** |
| Crime-related experiences and concerns (Interaction terms) | .07** | .07** |
| Political-social attitudes | .18*** | .18*** |
| Demographics | .04 | .04 |
| Contribution of motivations | | |
| Beyond crime-related concerns | .11*** | .32*** |
| Beyond political-social attitudes | .11*** | .24*** |
| Beyond demographics | .20*** | .35*** |
| Contribution of political-social attitudes | | |
| Beyond motivations | .08*** | .03** |
| Beyond crime-related concerns | .11*** | .13*** |
| Beyond demographics | .12*** | .12*** |
| Contribution of crime-related concerns | | |
| Beyond motivations | .00 | .00 |
| Beyond political-social attitudes | .01 | .02* |
| Beyond demographics | .07*** | .07*** |
| Total | .27*** | .40*** |

*p < .05.
**p < .01.
***p < .001.

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

beliefs motivating death penalty support were previously isolated. These sets of beliefs might themselves influence death penalty support, or the deterrence belief might do so in conjunction with personal concern about crime. To test these possibilities a usefulness analysis was performed comparing the explanatory power of three sets of beliefs (retribution, deterrence, and humanitarianism) and of the fear of crime X belief interaction terms. This analysis was performed for the deterrence belief alone and for the three motives as a group. The results of the analysis, shown in Table 6, indicate that the fear X deterrence interactions do not explain significant variance beyond that explained by motivations alone. If deterrence beliefs are considered alone, motivations explain significant variance beyond the fear X deterrence interactions, but the interactions explain no variance beyond the motivations considered alone. A similar conclusion emerges if the three motivations are considered together.

The results reported in Table 6 help to clarify the role of the fear X deterrence interaction found in the earlier simple regressions reported in Table 1. In that analysis, it was found that those who were high in fear and who believed that the death penalty was a deterrent were more likely to support the death penalty. The results of Table 6 suggest that that finding was a spurious result of the main effect of beliefs about deterrence upon support for the death penalty. Table 6 examines the influence of the fear X deterrence interaction upon death penalty support controlling for the main effect of beliefs about the death penalty. When such controls are made, the effect of that interaction disappears. The main effect of deterrence beliefs, on the other hand, remains, as does the main effect of political-social attitudes (although in weakened form). In other words, the beliefs that the death penalty is just, deters crime, and is not cruel, influence support for the death penalty, while the instrumental fear of crime by deterrence interaction does not.

The finding that beliefs about the death penalty exercise a strong independent effect upon death penalty support suggests that it is important to learn the source of these beliefs. To do so, usefulness analysis was utilized again. The results, shown in Table 7, suggest that belief in deterrence, retribution, and humanitarianism are most strongly related to political and social attitudes, i.e., that political and social attitudes are the major source of beliefs concerning the retributive value, deterrence value, and humanity of the death penalty.

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

Table 7. Usefulness Analysis: Sources of Motivation for Supporting the Death Penalty

| | Motivations | | |
|---|---|---|---|
| | Retribution | Deterrence | Humanitarianism |
| Zero-order contribution of | | | |
| Crime-related experiences and concerns (Main Effects) | .00 | .00 | .00 |
| Political-social attitudes | .20*** | .08*** | .03* |
| Demographics | .10** | .00 | .04 |
| Contribution of political attitudes | | | |
| Beyond crime-related concerns | .19*** | .08*** | .04* |
| Beyond demographics | .12*** | .05** | .05** |
| Contributions of crime-related concerns | | | |
| Beyond political attitudes | .00 | .00 | .00 |
| Beyond demographics | .00 | .00 | .00 |
| Total | .22*** | .04 | .09** |

*p < .05.
**p < .05.
***p <.001

## IV. DISCUSSION

The results of a direct comparison of the instrumental and symbolic perspectives on death penalty support suggest support for the symbolic perspective. Political and social beliefs were found to exercise a strong influence upon support for capital punishment, while the influence of crime-related concerns was small. This was true even when such concerns were weighted by beliefs in the effectiveness of punishment. In fact, the results of this study suggest that the findings associated with the instrumental perspective can best be explained as a direct result of beliefs in the value of the death penalty, beliefs which are closely associated with political-social attitudes. This finding has important implications both for predictions concerning who will support the death penalty and for understanding when such support develops.

When seeking to predict who will support the death penalty, the two theories which have been considered make differing predictions: the instrumental view suggests that those who are concerned about crime will support punitive public policies, while the symbolic view links such support to political-social attitudes. Since concern about crime is typically only weakly related to political-social attitudes (as evidenced by the data studied here as well as by other studies of crime victimization such as Tyler, 1978), these two groups of

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

individuals are not the same. The results of this survey suggest that death penalty support results from political-social attitudes, not instrumental concerns. These findings do not support the suggestion that being a crime victim or fearing crime leads to increased punitiveness in the public policy arenas. Indeed, other research suggests that citizens respond to these events by taking personal protective actions (Skogan, 1977; Tyler, 1980).

The finding that death penalty support is related to political-social attitudes also provides an indication of when the sources of such support develop. Research on the socialization process has suggested that basic political-social attitudes—i.e., liberalism, authoritarianism, dogmatism—are developed during the socialization process and, hence, formed prior to adulthood (see Sears, 1975, for a review of this literature). To the extent that this view is correct, it points to attitudes formed during childhood as the source of death penalty support.

In describing the political socialization process, Easton and Dennis (1969) argue that children first acquire a set of attitudes which are highly affective in character, i.e., which are not based upon cognitions about the objects of concern. Following this acquisition period, beliefs develop which support these initially formed attitudes. Viewing beliefs concerning retribution, deterrence, and humanitarianism as such cognitions helps to explain several findings concerning resistance to change in death penalty attitudes. First, studies have shown that most citizens whose deterrence belief is attacked still support the death penalty (Ellsworth and Ross, 1981; Sarat and Vidmar, 1976; Vidmar, 1974). Second, recent research suggests that citizens resist learning new information concerning the death penalty when it contradicts their prior views (Lord *et al.*, 1979). While the first finding can be explained by suggesting that those whose deterrence arguments are destroyed still support the death penalty for retributive reasons, this argument does not explain resistance to learning. The socialization view can explain both of these findings. If retributive, deterrence, and humanitarian beliefs are developed following basic political-social attitudes as cognitions to support an affective orientation, then such beliefs should be related to those basic attitudes and to each other. They are. They should also be resistant to change, since they are linked to an affectively based value position, and when they are discredited there should be only minimal changes in basic views. All of these characteristics of beliefs about the death penalty suggest that

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

they are justifications for basic value positions, positions suggested by political socialization research to develop during childhood and adolescence. This socialization view is similar to the view of Ellsworth and Ross (1981) that such beliefs are "rationalizations." It suggests, however, that they are not rationalizations invented on the spot to please an interviewer but part of a set of attitudes and justifying beliefs developed early in life.

One difficulty with the socialization perspective on death penalty support is its seeming incompatibility with evidence that the proportion of the adult population supporting the death penalty has shifted over time. For example, Harris and Gallup polls suggest that the proportion of adults supporting the death penalty in 1966 was 42 percent; in 1974, 59 percent. If support is basically stable during adulthood, how can such changes occur? The socialization perspective would suggest that such changes represent the addition of young people to the population and the subtraction of the old (i.e., cohort effects), rather than changes in belief during adulthood. Unfortunately, the stability of adult attitudes toward the death penalty has not been directly tested through the use of panel data. As a result, the implications of changes in aggregate public opinion for the socialization perspective have not been directly examined.

While the evidence suggests that basic political-social attitudes are learned during childhood, there is also some evidence of influence during adulthood in the Stinchcombe *et al.* finding that those concerned about crime show higher correlations between political-social attitudes and views about punitive public policies. From this finding it seems reasonable to conclude that concern about crime leads to a tightening of the linkage between values and their justifying beliefs.

The view of death penalty support developed here also has implications concerning changes in support. Noting the failure of research to support the deterrence argument, those opposed to capital punishment have hoped that widespread change in public attitudes might occur. The results of this study support those of Ellsworth and Ross (1981), Sarat and Vidmar (1976), and Vidmar (1974) in suggesting that this view is over-optimistic. To the extent that deterrence beliefs are a cognitive justification for an affective value position, those beliefs and the value position they protect will be only minimally responsive to cognitive persuasion. Such a view is consistent with considerable evidence within political psychology suggesting

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

that basic political-social attitudes are highly resistant to change in adulthood (Sears, 1975; Sears and Whitney, 1973).

The debate between the utilitarian and symbolic perspectives concerning death penalty support also has implications beyond our understanding of support for punitive public policies. Research within political science has been generally concerned with distinguishing the relative contribution of personal concerns and political-social attitudes to public policy support. While it has been traditionally believed that public policy preferences develop from personal or group-based concerns (Downs, 1957; Riker and Ordeshook, 1973), a recent series of studies has disputed this view, arguing for the primacy of political-social attitudes. These studies have been concerned both with policy support and with voting behavior.

Studies on policy support have suggested that opposition to busing of children to desegregate schools is strongly rooted in conservatism and race prejudice, more so than in personal involvement in the busing process (McConahay and Hawley, 1977; Sears *et al.*, 1980; Sears *et al.*, 1978). Similarly, an examination of positions on the war in Vietnam has suggested that support is related to conservatism and not to personal experiences with the war (Lau *et al.*, 1978). Finally, it has been shown that support for economic policies related to national health insurance and unemployment compensation is based more upon general conservatism than upon having used or expecting to use these services (Sears *et al.*, 1980). Similar findings have occurred in studies of voting preference (Kinder and Sears, 1981; Sears *et al.*, 1980).

The findings of this study provide further support for the symbolic politics hypothesis. They suggest that, as in other public policy arenas, basic political-social values are the predominant influence upon public policy preferences in the area of crime. Citizens' policy preferences concerning the use of the death penalty are a reflection of their basic values, not a result of their specific concerns about crime.

## REFERENCES

BABBIE, Earl (1973) *Survey Research Methods*. Belmont, CA: Wadsworth.

BLOCK, Richard (1971) "Fear of Crime and Fear of the Police," 19 *Social Problems* 91.

COMREY, Andrew and J. A. NEWMEYER (1965) "Measurement of Radicalism-Conservatism," 67 *Journal of Social Psychology* 357.

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

CONKLIN, John (1971) "Dimensions of Community Response to the Crime Problem," 18 *Social Problems* 373.

DOWNS, Anthony (1957) *An Economic Theory of Democracy*. New York: Harper-Row.

EASTON, David and Jack DENNIS (1969) *Children in the Political System: Origins of Political Legitimacy*. New York: McGraw-Hill.

ELLSWORTH, Phoebe (1978) "Attitudes Toward Capital Punishment: From Application to Theory." Paper presented at the Society for Experimental Social Psychology.

ELLSWORTH, Phoebe and Lee ROSS (1975) "Empirical Data and Judicial Decision Making." Paper presented at the Annual Convention of the American Psychological Association.

——— (1981) Public Opinion and Capital Punishment: A Close Examination of the Views of Abolitionists and Retentionists. Unpublished manuscript, 1981.

JORESKOG, Karl and Marielle VAN THILLO (1971) "New Rapid Algorithms for Factor Analysis by Unweighted Least Squares, Generalized Least Squares and Maximum Likelihood." Report No. RM-71-5. Princeton, N.J.: Educational Testing Service.

JORESKOG, Karl and Dag SORBOM (1978) *LISREL IV: Analysis of Linear Structural Relationships by the Method of Maximum Likelihood*. Chicago: International Educational Services.

JUROW, George (1971) "New Data on the Effect of a 'Death-Qualified' Jury on the Guilt Determination Processes," 84 *Harvard Law Review* 567.

KINDER, Donald and David SEARS (1981) "Prejudice and Politics: Symbolic Racism versus Racial Threats to the Good Life," 40 *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology* 414.

KIRSCHT, John and Ronald DILLEHAY (1967) *Dimensions of Authoritarianism: A Review of Research and Theory*. Lexington, Kentucky: University of Kentucky Press.

LAU, Richard, Thad BROWN, and David SEARS (1978) "Self-Interest and Civilians' Attitudes Toward the Vietnam War," 42 *Public Opinion Quarterly* 464.

LORD, Charles, Lee ROSS, and Mark LEPPER (1979) "Biased Assimilation and Attitude Polarization: The Effects of Prior Theories on Subsequently Considered Evidence," 37 *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology* 2098.

MCCONAHAY, John and W. D. HAWLEY (1977) "Is it the Buses or the Blacks." Paper presented at the Annual Meeting of the American Psychological Association

RIKER, William and Peter ORDESHOOK (1973) *An Introduction to Positive Political Theory*. Englewood Cliffs, NJ: Prentice-Hall.

ROKEACH, Milton and D. Daniel MCLELLAN (1969) "Dogmatism and the Death Penalty: A Reinterpretation of the Duquesne Poll Data," 8 *Duquesne Law Review* 125.

ROKEACH, Milton, and Neil VIDMAR (1973) "Testimony Concerning Possible Jury Bias in a Black Panther Murder Trial," 3 *Journal of Applied Social Psychology* 19.

SARAT, Austin, and Neil VIDMAR (1976) "Public Opinion, the Death Penalty, and the Eighth Amendment: Testing the Marshall Hypothesis," 1976 *Wisconsin Law Review* 171.

SEARS, David (1975) Political Socialization. Unpublished manuscript.

SEARS, David, Carl HENSLER, and Leslie SPEER (1979) "Whites' Opposition to Busing: Self-Interest or Symbolic Politics?" 73 *American Political Science Review* 369.

SEARS, David, Richard LAU, Tom TYLER, and Harris ALLEN (1980) "Self-Interest vs. Symbolic Politics in Policy Attitudes and Presidential Voting," 74 *American Political Science Review* 670.

SEARS, David and Richard WHITNEY (1973) "Political Persuasion," in Ithiel de Sola Pool (ed.), *Handbook of Communication*. Chicago: Rand-McNally.

SKOGAN, Wesley (1977) "Public Policy and the Fear of Crime in Large American Cities," in John A. Gardiner (ed.), *Public Law and Public Policy*. New York: Praeger.

SNORTUM, John and Victor ASHEAR (1972) "Prejudice, Punitiveness, and Personality," 36 *Journal of Personality Assessment* 291.

STINCHCOMBE, Arthur, Rebecca ADAMS, Carol HEIMER, Kim LANE SCHEPPELE, Tom SMITH, and D. Garth TAYLOR (1980) *Crime and Punishment: Changing Attitudes in America*. San Francisco: Jossey-Bass.

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions

TAYLOR, D. Garth, Kim SCHEPPELE, and Arthur STINCHCOMBE (1979) "Salience of Crime and Support for Harsher Criminal Sanctions," 26 *Social Problems* 413.

THOMAS, Charles (1977) "Eighth Amendment Challenges to the Death Penalty: The Relevance of Informed Public Opinion," 30 *Vanderbilt Law Review* 1005.

THOMAS, Charles and Robin CAGE (1976) "Correlates of Public Attitudes Toward Legal Sanctions," 4 *International Journal of Criminology and Penology* 239.

THOMAS, Charles and Samuel FOSTER (1975) "A Sociological Perspective on Public Support for Capital Punishment," 45 *American Journal of Orthopsychiatry* 641.

THOMAS, Charles and Robert HOWARD (1977) "Public Attitudes Toward Capital Punishment: A Comparative Analysis," 6 *Journal of Behavioral Economics* 189.

TROLDAHL, Verling and Roy CARTER (1964) "Random Selection of Respondents within Households in Phone Surveys," 1 (2) *Journal of Marketing Research* 71.

TYLER, Tom R. (1978) Drawing Inferences from Experiences: The Effect of Crime Victimization Experiences upon Crime-Related Attitudes and Behaviors. Unpublished doctoral dissertation, UCLA, 1978.

TYLER, Tom R. (1980) "Impact of Directly and Indirectly Experienced Events: The Origin of Crime-Related Judgments and Behaviors," 39 *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology* 13.

VIDMAR, Neil (1974) "Retributive and Utilitarian Motives and Other Correlates of Canadian Attitudes Toward the Death Penalty," 15 *The Canadian Psychologist* 337.

VIDMAR, Neil and Tony DITTENHOFFER (1981) "Informed Public Opinion and Death Penalty Attitudes," 23 *Canadian Journal of Criminology* 43.

VIDMAR, Neil and Phoebe ELLSWORTH (1974) "Public Opinion and the Death Penalty," 26 *Stanford Law Review* 1245.

VIDMAR, Neil and Dale MILLER (1980) "Socialpsychological Processes Underlying Attitudes Toward Legal Punishment," 14 *Law & Society Review* 565.

This content downloaded from 165.190.89.176 on Thu, 18 Feb 2016 14:19:32 UTC
All use subject to JSTOR Terms and Conditions